Generalized Function

A generalized function, also called a "distribution" or "ideal function," is the class of all regular sequences of particularly well-behaved functions equivalent to a given regular sequence. As its name implies, a generalized function is a generalization of the concept of a function. For example, in physics, a baseball being hit by a bat encounters a force from the bat, as a function of time. Since the transfer of momentum from the bat is modeled as taking place at an instant, the force is not actually a function. Instead, it is a multiple of the delta function. The set of distributions contains functions (locally integrable) and Radon measures. Note that the term "distribution" is closely related to statistical distributions.

Generalized functions are defined as continuous linear functionals over a space of infinitely differentiable functions such that all continuous functions have derivatives which are themselves generalized functions. The most commonly encountered generalized function is the delta function. Vladimirov (1971) contains a nice treatment of distributions from a physicist's point of view, while the multivolume work by Gel'fand and Shilov (1964abcde) is a classic and rigorous treatment of the field. A result of Schwarz shows that distributions can't be consistently defined over the complex numbers $\mathbb{C}$.

While it is possible to add distributions, it is not possible to multiply distributions when they have coinciding singular support. Despite this, it is possible to take the derivative of a distribution, to get another distribution. Consequently, they may satisfy a linear partial differential equation, in which case the distribution is called a weak solution. For example, given any locally integrable function f it makes sense to ask for solutions u of Poisson's equation

$$\nabla^2 u = f \tag{1}$$

by only requiring the equation to hold in the sense of distributions, that is, both sides are the same distribution. The definitions of the derivatives of a distribution $p(x)$ are given by

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} p'(x) f(x)\,dx = -\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} p(x) f'(x)\,dx \tag{2}$$

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} p^{(n)}(x) f(x)\,dx = (-1)^n \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} p(x) f^{(n)}(x)\,dx. \tag{3}$$

Distributions also differ from functions because they are covariant, that is, they push forward. Given a smooth function $\alpha : \Omega_1 \to \Omega_2$, a distribution T on Ω_1 pushes forward to a distribution on Ω_2. In contrast, a real function f on Ω_2 pulls back to a function on Ω_1, namely $f(\alpha(x))$.

Distributions are, by definition, the dual to the smooth functions of compact support, with a particular topology. For example, the delta function δ is the linear functional $\delta(f) = f(0)$. The distribution corresponding to a function g is

$$T_g(f) = \int_\Omega f\, g, \tag{4}$$

and the distribution corresponding to a measure μ is

$$T_\mu(f) = \int_\Omega f\, d\mu. \tag{5}$$

The pushforward map of a distribution T along α is defined by

$$\alpha_* T(f) = T(f \circ \alpha), \tag{6}$$

and the derivative of T is defined by $D\,T(f) = T\left(D^\dagger f\right)$ where $D^\dagger$ is the formal adjoint of D. For example, the first derivative of the delta function is given by

$$\frac{d}{dx}[\delta(f)] = -\left.\frac{df}{dx}\right|_{x=0}. \tag{7}$$

As is the case for any function space, the topology determines which linear functionals are continuous, that is, are in the dual vector space. The topology is defined by the family of seminorms,

$$N_{K,\alpha}(f) = \sup_K \left\| D^\alpha f \right\|, \tag{8}$$

where sup denotes the supremum. It agrees with the C-infty topology on compact subsets. In this topology, a sequence converges, $f_n \to f$, iff there is a compact set K such that all f_n are supported in K and every derivative $D^\alpha f_n$ converges uniformly to $D^\alpha f$ in K. Therefore, the constant function 1 is a distribution, because if $f_n \to f$ then

$$T_1(f_n) = \int_K f_n \to \int_K f = T_1(f). \tag{9}$$

SEE ALSO

Convolution, Delta Function, Delta Sequence, Fourier Series, Functional, Linear Functional, Microlocal Analysis, Statistical Analysis, Tempered Distribution, Ultradistribution

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SUBJECT CLASSIFICATIONS

Calculus and Analysis › Generalized Functions ›

Calculus and Analysis › Functional Analysis ›

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Functional

A functional is a real-valued function on a vector space V, usually of functions. For example, the energy functional on the unit disk D assigns a number to any differentiable function $f: D \to \mathbb{R}$,

$$E(f) = \int_D \|\nabla f\|^2 \, dA.$$

For the functional to be continuous, it is necessary for the vector space V of functions to have an appropriate topology. The widespread use of functionals in applications, such as the calculus of variations, gave rise to functional analysis.

The reason the term "functional" is used is because V can be a space of functions, e.g.,

$$V = \{f : [0, 1] \to \mathbb{R} : f \text{ is continuous}\}$$

in which case $T(f) = f(0)$ is a linear functional on V.

SEE ALSO

Calculus of Variations, Coercive Functional, Current, Euler-Lagrange Differential Equation, Functional Analysis, Functional Derivative, Functional Equation, Generalized Function, Laplacian, Lax-Milgram Theorem, Linear Functional, Operator, Riesz Representation Theorem, Vector Space

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Linear Functional

A linear functional on a real vector space V is a function $T : V \to \mathbb{R}$, which satisfies the following properties.

1. $T(v + w) = T(v) + T(w)$, and

2. $T(\alpha v) = \alpha T(v)$.

When V is a complex vector space, then T is a linear map into the complex numbers.

Generalized functions are a special case of linear functionals, and have a rich theory surrounding them.

SEE ALSO

Dual Vector Space, Functional, Generalized Function, Linear Function, Vector Space

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Calculus of Variations

A branch of mathematics that is a sort of generalization of calculus. Calculus of variations seeks to find the path, curve, surface, etc., for which a given function has a stationary value (which, in physical problems, is usually a minimum or maximum). Mathematically, this involves finding stationary values of integrals of the form

$$I = \int_b^a f(y, \dot{y}, x)\, dx. \tag{1}$$

I has an extremum only if the Euler-Lagrange differential equation is satisfied, i.e., if

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial y} - \frac{d}{dx}\left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial \dot{y}}\right) = 0. \tag{2}$$

The fundamental lemma of calculus of variations states that, if

$$\int_a^b M(x)\, h(x)\, dx = 0 \tag{3}$$

for all $h(x)$ with continuous second partial derivatives, then

$$M(x) = 0 \tag{4}$$

on (a, b).

A generalization of calculus of variations known as Morse theory (and sometimes called "calculus of variations in the large") uses nonlinear techniques to address variational problems.

SEE ALSO

Beltrami Identity, Bolza Problem, Brachistochrone Problem, Catenary, Envelope Theorem, Euler-Lagrange Differential Equation, Isoperimetric Problem, Isovolume Problem, Lindelof's Theorem, Morse Theory, Plateau's Problem, Line Line Picking, Roulette, Skew Quadrilateral, Sphere with Tunnel, Surface of Revolution, Unduloid, Weierstrass-Erdman Corner Condition

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